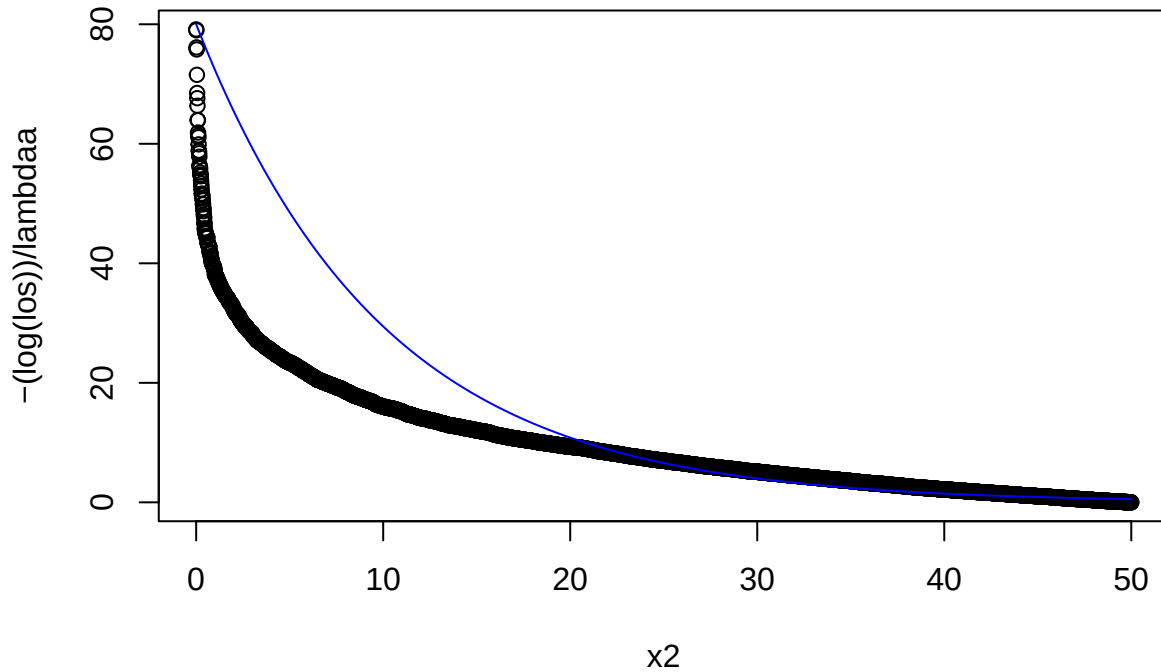


```

set.seed(131311)
#-----
x2 <- seq(0, 50, by = 0.01)
los <- sort(runif(5001, 0, 1))
#-----

gen_exp1 <- function(lambdaa) {
  plot(x2, -(log(los))/ lambdaa)
  lines(x2, dexp(x2, rate = lambdaa)* 800, col = "blue")
}
gen_exp1(1/10)

```



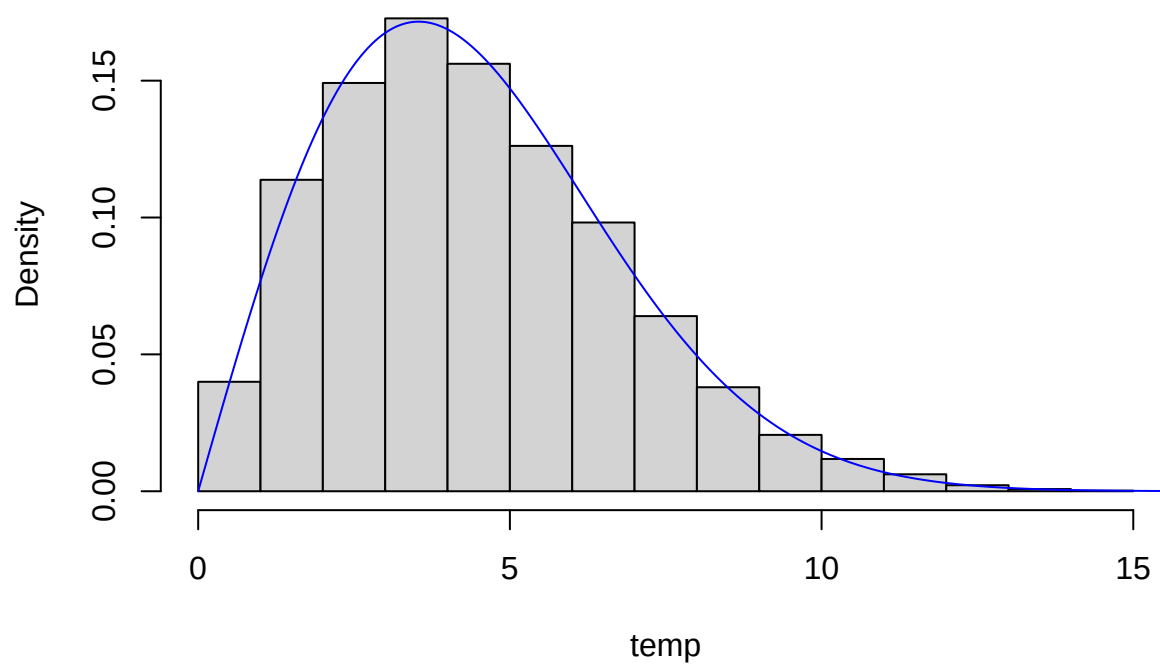
```

gen_wei <- function(k, lambda) {
  temp <- (lambda * (-log(1 - los)) ^ (1 / k))
  hist(temp, freq = FALSE)
  lines(x2, dweibull(x2, k, lambda), col = "blue")
}

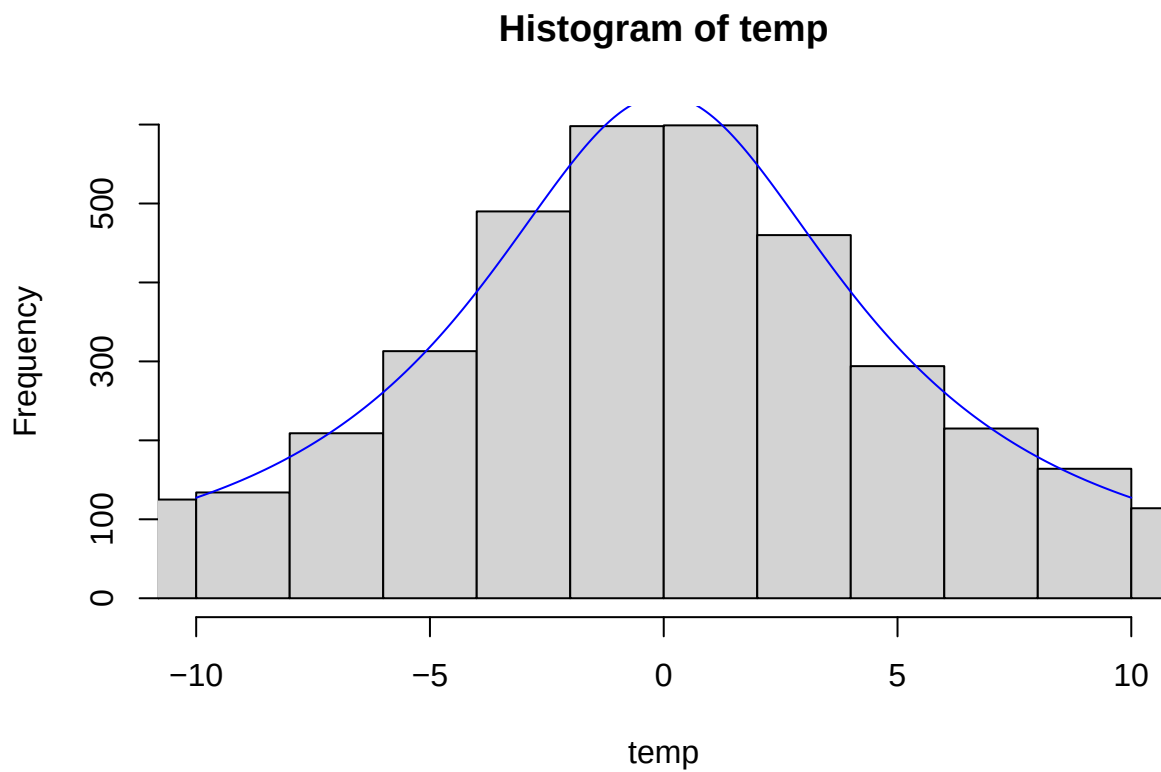
gen_wei(2, 5)

```

Histogram of temp



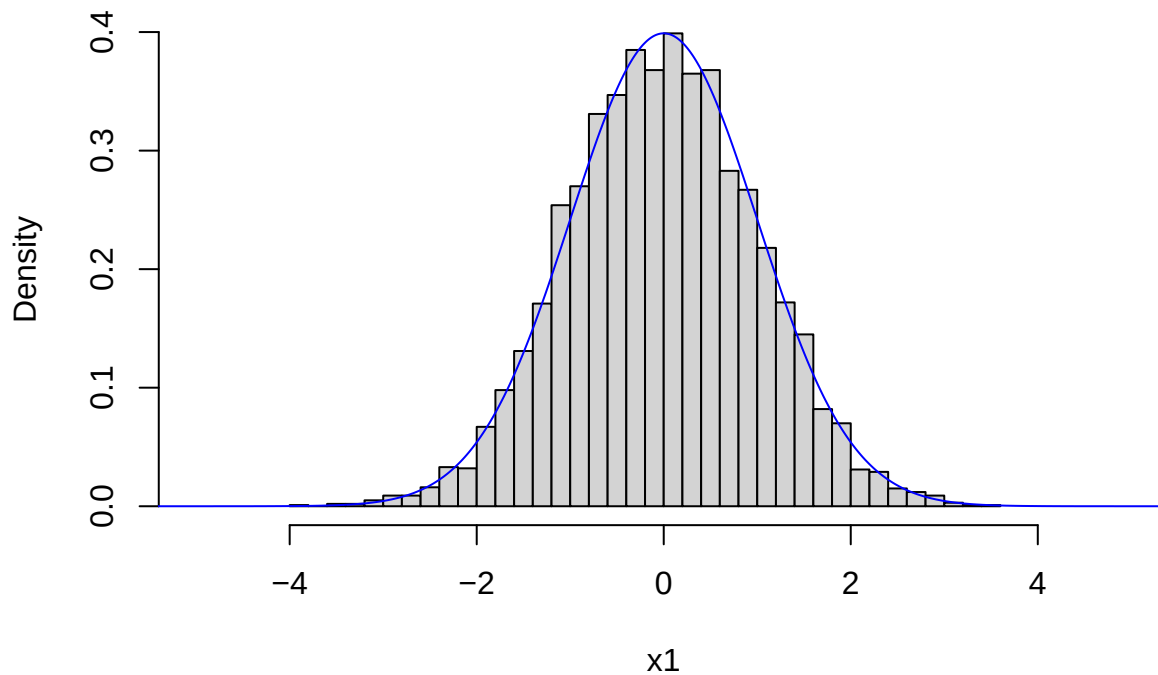
```
gen_cau <- function(lambda) {  
  temp <- lambda * tan(pi * (los - 0.5))  
  hist(temp, breaks = 5000, xlim = c(-10, 10))  
  x3 <- seq(-10, 10, by = 0.004)  
  lines(x3, dcauchy(x3, scale = lambda) * 10000, col = "blue")  
}  
gen_cau(5)
```



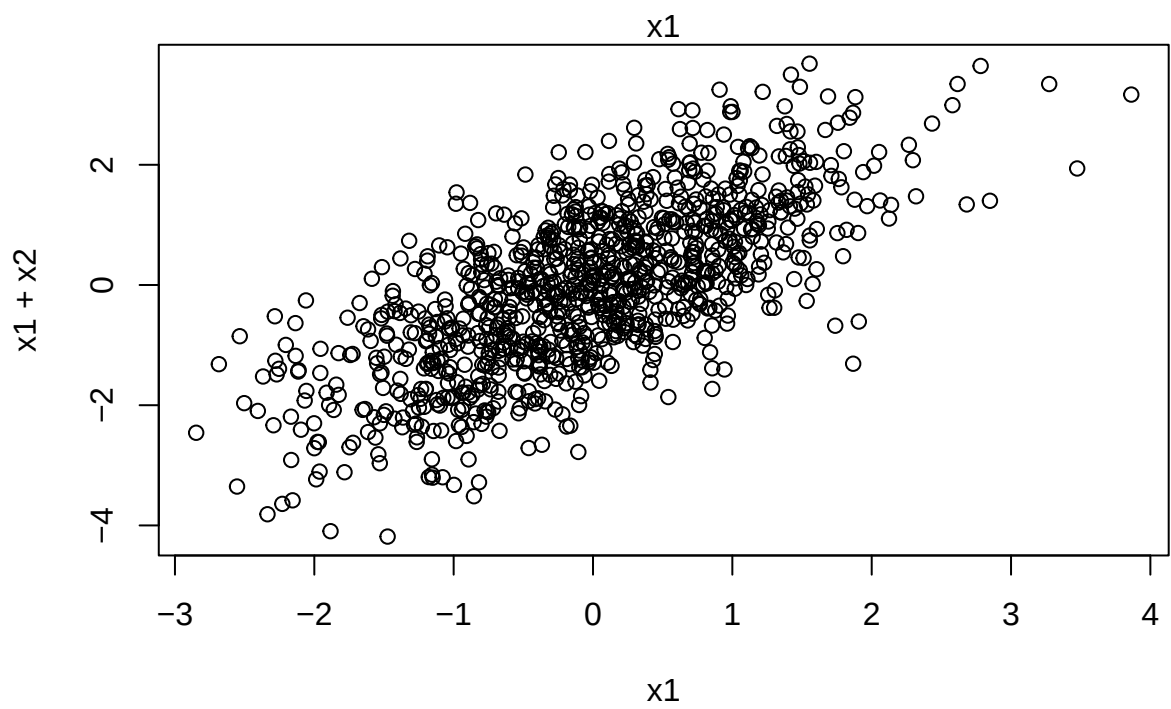
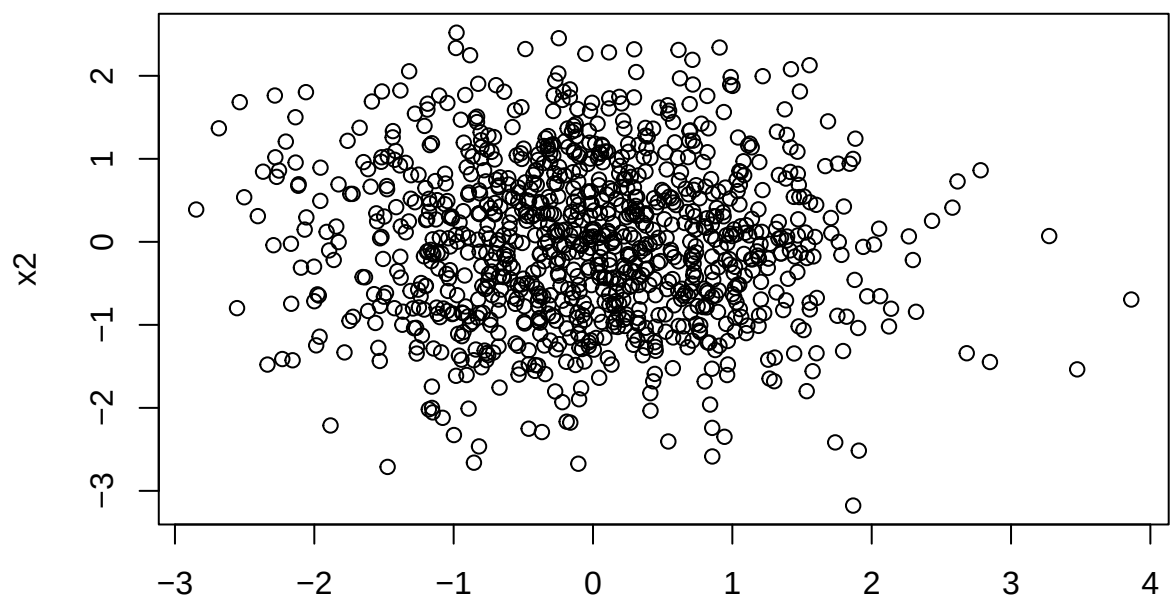
Wygeneruj dwie niezależne zmienne losowe u i v z rozkładu jednostajnego na przedziale $(0, 1)$. Oblicz $x = \arctg((v - 0.5) / u)$. Zwróć wartość przesunięcie + $\lambda * x$.

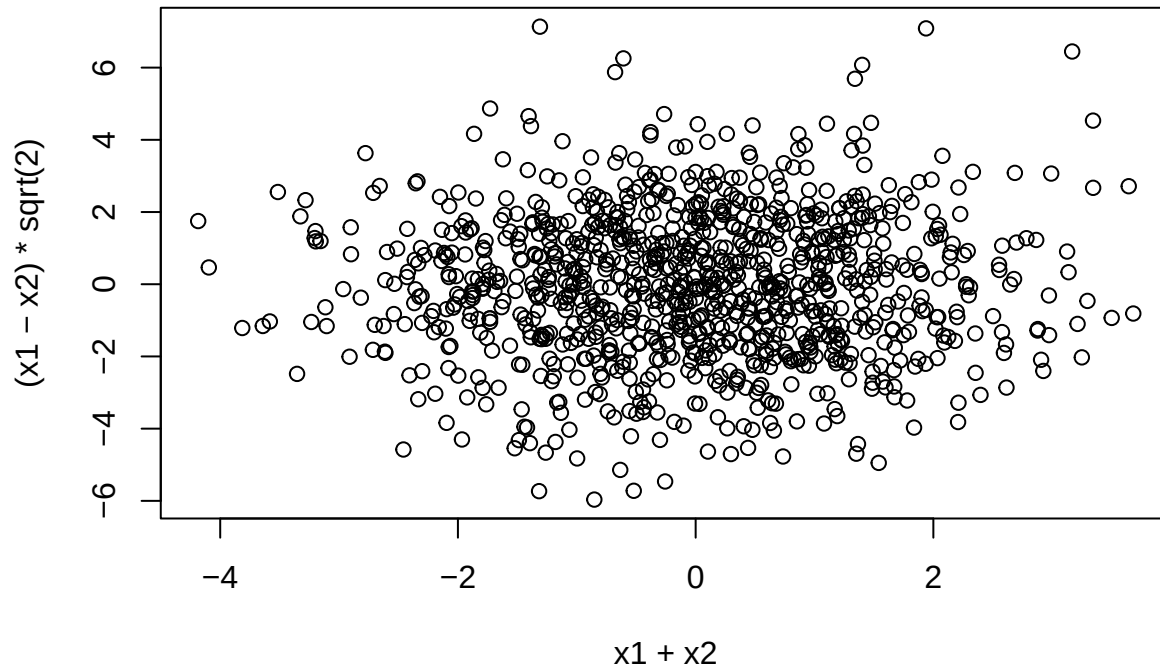
```
#-----
gen_box_mul <- function() {
  los1 <- (runif(5001, 0, 1))
  los2 <- (runif(5001, 0, 1))
  x1 <- sqrt(-2*log(los1))*cos(2*pi*los2)
  x3 <- seq(-10, 10, by = 0.01)
  hist(x1, freq = FALSE, xlim = c(-5, 5), breaks = 30)
  lines(x3, dnorm(x3), col = "blue")
}
gen_box_mul()
```

Histogram of x1



```
gen_splot <- function() {  
  los1 <- (runif(1000, 0, 1))  
  los2 <- (runif(1000, 0, 1))  
  x1 <- sqrt(-2 * log(los1)) * cos(2 * pi * los2)  
  x2 <- sqrt(-2 * log(los1)) * sin(2 * pi * los2)  
  plot(x1,x2)  
  plot(x1,x1+x2)  
  plot(x1 + x2, (x1 - x2) * sqrt(2))  
  print(cov(x1, x2))  
  print(cor.test(x1, x2))  
  # p-value = 0.1666  
  print(cov(x1, x1 + x2))  
  print(cor.test(x1, x1 + x2))  
  # p-value = 2.2e-16  
  print(cov(x1 + x2, (x1 - x2) * sqrt(2)))  
  print(cor.test(x1 + x2, (x1 - x2) * sqrt(2)))  
  # p-value = 0.57  
  #Przyjmuje sie że dla p-value <= 0.05 możemy stwierdzić, że istnieje  
  #statystycznie istotny związek między zmiennymi  
}  
gen_splot()
```



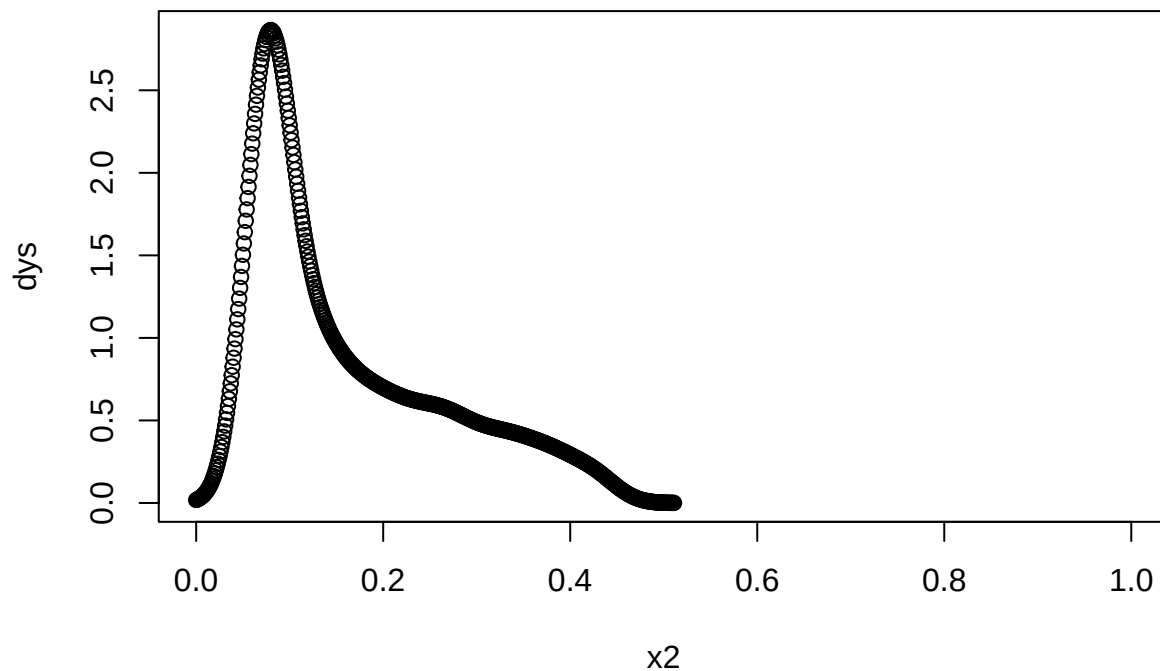


```
## [1] -0.04211688
##
## Pearson's product-moment correlation
##
## data:  x1 and x2
## t = -1.3841, df = 998, p-value = 0.1666
## alternative hypothesis: true correlation is not equal to 0
## 95 percent confidence interval:
## -0.1054789 0.0182706
## sample estimates:
##      cor
## -0.04377206
##
## [1] 0.9371279
##
## Pearson's product-moment correlation
##
## data:  x1 and x1 + x2
## t = 30.798, df = 998, p-value < 2.2e-16
## alternative hypothesis: true correlation is not equal to 0
## 95 percent confidence interval:
## 0.6648378 0.7285263
## sample estimates:
##      cor
## 0.6980601
##
## [1] 0.04782775
##
## Pearson's product-moment correlation
##
## data:  x1 + x2 and (x1 - x2) * sqrt(2)
## t = 0.55572, df = 998, p-value = 0.5785
```

```
## alternative hypothesis: true correlation is not equal to 0
## 95 percent confidence interval:
## -0.04445321 0.07949475
## sample estimates:
##      cor
## 0.01758834
```

```
gen_custom <- function() {
  x2 <- seq(0, 1, by = 0.001)
  los <- (runif(1001, 0, 1))
  los <- los ^ 3
  dys <- density(los)$y[1:1001]
  plot(x2, dys)
  # Przypomina rozkład beta
  # Wzór na gęstość znajduje się tu https://pl.wikipedia.org/wiki/Rozk%C5%82ad\_beta
  #  $U^3$  Nie jest funkcją kwantylową bo nie jest monotonicznie rosnąca
}

gen_custom()
```



```
gen_custom2 <- function() {
  los1 <- (runif(5001, 0, 1))
  los2 <- (runif(5001, 0, 1))
  x1 <- sqrt(-2 * log(los1)) * cos(2 * pi * los2)
  x1 <- abs(x1)
  x3 <- seq(-10, 10, by = 0.01)
  hist(x1, freq = FALSE, xlim = c(0, 10), breaks = 30)
  lines(x3, dnorm(x3) * 2, col = "blue")
  # Jest to po prostu ucięcie gęstości rozkładu normalnego do liczb nieujemnych
  #  $-2(\ln U)$  to jest zm los o rozkładzie wykładniczym z parametrem 2
}

gen_custom2()
```

Histogram of x1

